

# NYĀYA

## *Study Notes — Chapter Twelve*

Based on C. D. Sharma, *A Critical Survey of Indian Philosophy*, Chapter Twelve (pp. 191–210)

*Comprehensive notes — epistemology, perception theory, inference and syllogistic logic, comparison, causation, soul, and the theistic proofs, with Sharma's critical evaluations preserved in full.*

**Note on the source text:** *The scanned pages supplied jump directly from page 203 to page 206. Pages 204–205 are therefore absent from these notes, corresponding to the closing portion of the Comparison (Upamāna) section, the entirety of Section VI on Verbal Testimony (Śabda/Āgama) — which Nyāya treats as the fourth independent pramāṇa — and the opening of the Causation discussion. This gap is flagged at the relevant point below rather than silently bridged or invented. Everything else in the chapter is reproduced with full argumentative detail.*

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## I. Introduction

The sage **Gotama** is the founder of the Nyāya school. He is also known as **Gautama** and as **Akṣapāda**. “Nyāya” means *argumentation*, and the name suggests that the system is predominantly intellectual, analytic, logical and epistemological in character. It carries several other technical names, each capturing one facet of its concerns:

- **Tarkaśāstra** — the science of reasoning;
- **Pramāṇasāstra** — the science of logic and epistemology;
- **Hetuvidyā** — the science of causes;
- **Vādaśāstra** — the science of debate;
- **Ānvīkṣikī** — the science of critical study.

### Textual Lineage

Gotama’s *Nyāya-sūtra* was commented upon by **Vātsyāyana** in his *Nyāya-bhāṣya*. On this, **Uddyotakara** wrote his *Vārtika*, which was in turn commented upon by **Vāchaspati** in his *Tātparya-ṭīkā*. **Udayana’s** *Nyāya-kusumāñjali* and **Jayanta’s** *Nyāya-mañjarī* are the other important works of the school. The **Navya-nyāya**, or modern school of Indian logic, begins with the epoch-making *Tattva-chintāmaṇi* of **Gaṅgeśa**. Vāsudeva, Raghunātha, Mathurānātha, Jagadīsha and Gadādhara are the eminent logicians of this later school.

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## II. Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika

Nyāya is a system of **atomistic pluralism** and **logical realism**. It is allied to the Vaiśeṣika system, regarded as ‘*Sāmānatantra*’ or a similar/parallel philosophy. The division of philosophical labour between the two schools is functional: Vaiśeṣika develops **metaphysics and ontology**; Nyāya develops **logic and epistemology**.

### Points of Agreement

- Both view earthly life as full of suffering, as bondage of the soul.
- Both regard liberation — the absolute cessation of suffering — as the supreme end of life.
- Both agree that bondage is due to ignorance of reality, and liberation is due to right knowledge of reality.
- Vaiśeṣika takes up the exposition of reality (the object known); Nyāya takes up the exposition of right knowledge of reality (the means of knowing).
- Nyāya mostly *accepts* Vaiśeṣika metaphysics wholesale.

### Points of Difference

Two important points of difference are noted:

- 1 **Categories.** Vaiśeṣika recognizes **seven categories** (padthārthas) and classifies all reals under them. Nyāya recognizes **sixteen categories**, and folds all seven Vaiśeṣika categories into just *one* of its sixteen — the category called **Prameya** or “the Knowable,” which is the second in the list of sixteen. The very *first* category in the Nyāya scheme is **Pramāṇa**, the valid means of knowledge — a fact that itself clearly displays the predominantly logical and epistemological character of the Nyāya system, in contrast to Vaiśeṣika’s ontological starting point.
  - 2 **Number of Pramāṇas.** Vaiśeṣika recognizes only **two** independent pramāṇas — perception and inference — and *reduces* comparison and verbal authority to varieties of inference. Nyāya, by contrast, recognizes **all four as separate and irreducible**: perception, inference, comparison, and verbal authority (testimony).
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### III. Knowledge and Perception

#### The Nature of Knowledge

**Knowledge** (*jñāna*) or cognition (*buddhi*) is defined as apprehension (*upalabdhi*) or consciousness (*anubhava*). Nyāya, being thoroughgoingly realistic, holds that knowledge reveals **both** the subject **and** the object, both of which are quite distinct from knowledge itself. All knowledge is a **revelation or manifestation of objects** (*arthaprakāśo buddhiḥ*). Sharma’s guiding analogy: just as a lamp manifests physical things placed before it — without creating or altering them — so knowledge reveals all objects that come before it.

#### Valid and Invalid Knowledge

*Pramā (valid knowledge) is defined as the right apprehension of an object (yathārthānubhavaḥ) — the manifestation of an object as it is.*

Nyāya maintains the theory of **extrinsic validity** or **correspondence** (*parataḥ prāmāṇya*): knowledge, in order to be valid, must correspond to reality. Valid knowledge is produced by the **four valid means of knowledge** — perception, inference, comparison, and testimony. **Invalid** knowledge, by contrast, includes:

- **Memory** (*smṛti*) — not valid because it is not *presentative* cognition but a *representative* one; the object remembered is not directly presented to the soul, but only indirectly recalled.
- **Doubt** (*saṁshaya*) — uncertainty in cognition.
- **Error** (*viparyaya*) — misapprehension, since it does not correspond to the real object.
- **Hypothetical reasoning** (*tarka*) — not real knowledge; it is arguing counterfactually, e.g., ‘if there were no fire, there cannot be smoke.’

Sharma’s illustrative set, using a single object: when you see a rope *as* a rope, you have right knowledge; if you are uncertain whether it is a rope or a snake, you have doubt; if

you recall the rope you have earlier seen, you have memory; if you mistake the rope for a snake, you have error.

## How Knowledge Is Produced, and the Test of Truth

Knowledge is produced **in the soul** when the soul comes into contact with the not-soul. It is an **adventitious property** of the soul, generated in it by the object. If the generating conditions are sound, the resulting knowledge is valid; if the conditions are defective, the knowledge is invalid — as when a man of sound vision sees a conch as white, while a man suffering from jaundice sees the very same conch as yellow.

**Correspondence with the object is the nature of truth.** If knowledge corresponds to its object, it is valid; if it does not, it is invalid.

- Valid knowledge corresponds to its object (*yathārtha* and *avisamvādi*) and leads to **successful activity** (*pravṛttisāmarthya*).
- Invalid knowledge does not correspond to its object (*ayathārtha* and *visamvādi*) and leads to **failure and disappointment** (*pravṛttivisamvāda*). ‘Fire must burn and cook and shed light. If it does not, it is no fire.’

A crucial epistemological distinction follows: knowledge, **intrinsically**, is *only* a manifestation of objects. The question of its validity or invalidity is a **subsequent** question, depending upon its correspondence with its object. Truth and falsity are therefore **extrinsic** characteristics of knowledge — they are apprehended by a *subsequent* cognition. They arise, and are apprehended, only *after* knowledge has already arisen; they are **neither intrinsic nor self-evident**.

*Formula: validity and invalidity of knowledge **arise** (utpattaḥ parataḥ prāmāṇyam) only after knowledge has arisen, and they are **known** (jñaptaḥ parataḥ prāmāṇyam) only after knowledge has arisen and validity/invalidity have themselves already arisen. In short: both the origination and the cognition of prāmāṇya are parataḥ — extrinsic, dependent on something beyond the bare occurrence of the cognition itself.*

Correspondence is thus the **content** of truth, and successful activity is the **test** of truth. The Nyāya theory of knowledge is accordingly described as **realistic** (as regards the nature of truth) and **pragmatic** (as regards the test of truth).

Perception, inference, comparison (or analogy), and verbal testimony are the four kinds of valid knowledge. Sharma takes them up one by one.

## Perception (Pratyakṣa)

*Gotama’s definition (Nyāya-sūtra I.1.4): perception is ‘non-erroneous cognition which is produced by the intercourse of the sense-organs with the objects, which is not associated with a name, and which is well-defined’ (indriyārthasannikarṣotpannam jñānam avyapadeshyam avyabhichāri vyavasāyātmakam pratyakṣam).*

This definition **excludes** divine and yogic perception, since those are not generated by the intercourse of sense-organs with objects. Vishvanātha therefore supplies a broader definition: perception is '**direct or immediate cognition which is not derived through the instrumentality of any other cognition**' (*jñānākaraṇakam jñānam pratyakṣam*). This second definition includes both ordinary *and* extraordinary perception, while still excluding inference, comparison and testimony.

Perception is a kind of knowledge and is an **attribute of the self**. Ordinary perception presupposes the sense-organs, the objects, the *manas* (mind) and the self, together with their mutual contacts, in a strict dependency chain:

- The self comes into contact with the *manas*;
- the *manas* comes into contact with the sense-organs;
- the sense-organs come into contact with the objects.

The contact of the sense-organs with objects is **not possible** unless the *manas* first comes into contact with the sense-organs, and the contact of the *manas* with the sense-organs is **not possible** unless the self first comes into contact with the *manas*. Sense-object contact thus necessarily **presupposes** both the *manas*-sense contact and the self-*manas* contact.

The sense-organs themselves are derived from the material elements, each element endowing its sense-organ with the capacity to grasp that element's **specific quality** — smell, taste, colour, touch and sound respectively. Thus the sense-organ of smell is composed of the atoms of earth and perceives smell, the specific quality of earth, and so on for the other senses and elements. The *manas* is the **mediator** between the self and the sense-organs: the external object, through the senses and the *manas*, makes an impression on the self. "The theory, therefore, is realistic."

### The Two Stages of Perception: Nirvikalpa and Savikalpa

The Naiyāyika maintains **two stages** in perception — the **indeterminate** or *nirvikalpa* stage, and the **determinate** or *savikalpa* stage. Sharma is emphatic on a key point: these are **not two different kinds** of perception, but only the earlier and later stages within the *same complex process* of perception. Both stages are already recognized in Gotama's own definition quoted above: perception is 'unassociated with a name' (*avyapadeshya*), which corresponds to the indeterminate stage, and it is 'well-defined' (*vyavasāyātmaka*), which corresponds to the determinate stage. **All** perception is determinate, but it is **necessarily preceded** by an earlier stage at which it is indeterminate.

Sharma credits Nyāya with recognizing a fundamental epistemological fact usually credited to Kant in Western philosophy — that knowledge involves **both** sensation and conception: 'Percepts without concepts are blind, and concepts without percepts are empty.' Perception is thus a complex process of experience involving both sensation and conception; **all** perception we actually have is determinate, because it is perceptual *knowledge*, i.e. a perceptual **judgment**. Sensation is the **material**, and conception is the **form**, of knowledge. Bare sensation, or simple apprehension, is *nirvikalpa* perception; perceptual judgment, or relational apprehension, is *savikalpa* perception.

Nyāya explicitly **avoids the fallacy of the ‘psychical staircase’ theory** — the mistaken view that we first have sense-experience, then conception, and then judgment, as three separate successive stages. Instead, perception is a **complex presentative-representative process** in which we **cannot really separate** direct awareness from relational judgment. Indeterminate perception forms the *material* out of which determinate perception is shaped, but the two can be distinguished only **in thought**, not **divided in reality**.

**Nirvikalpa** perception is the immediate apprehension, the bare awareness, the direct sense-experience which is **undifferentiated** and **non-relational**, free from assimilation, discrimination, analysis and synthesis. The consciousness of the ‘that’ is not yet determined by the consciousness of the ‘what.’ But since the ‘that’ cannot really be known as separated from the ‘what’ — the ‘substance’ cannot be known apart from its ‘qualities’ — we **immediately** pass over into **savikalpa** perception, where the mere awareness of the ‘that’ and the ‘what’, and their ‘inherence’, as something undifferentiated, unrelated, dumb and inarticulate, is **transformed** into differentiated, relational, conceptual and articulate knowledge involving assimilation, discrimination, analysis and synthesis.

Sharma’s worked example: when we go from broad daylight into a dark cinema hall to watch a matinée, we at first do not see the seats or the audience clearly — we have only a dim sensation of the objects present, which gradually reveal themselves to us. The dim sense-experience of the objects in the hall is **indeterminate** perception; the clear perception of them, once our eyes adjust, is **determinate** perception.

Further illustrations Sharma offers:

- We see at dusk a straight something lying on the road and find out, on approaching it, that it is a rope — the earlier stage is indeterminate, the later, determinate.
- We see a white moving object at a distance, and when it comes near we see it is a white cow — again, indeterminate followed by determinate.
- When in a hurry to bathe, we feel the water and feel its coolness, but we do **not relate the two** — that is indeterminate perception, which presents the bare object without any characterization; in determinate perception we **relate** the substance with its attributes.

Sharma draws a further, delicate distinction between the **psychological** and the **logical** status of indeterminate perception: the *feeling* of indeterminate perception is psychological, but its *knowledge* is logical. As bare awareness, as mere apprehension, we *feel* indeterminate perception — but the very moment we try to *know* it, even as ‘bare awareness,’ it has already passed into conception and has become determinate. Hence **all our perception, considered as a cognition, is determinate and is a perceptual judgment**. We can separate indeterminate from determinate perception only in thought, never in reality. So although we *feel* indeterminate perception directly, as a psychological state of sense-experience, its *knowledge* — even as ‘indeterminate perception’ — is itself a result of logical deduction. We feel it directly but only as an **awareness**, not as a **cognition**. Mere apprehension, being infra-relational, cannot itself be cognized; as a

cognition it is **inferred afterwards**, once conception has transformed mere sensation into a perceptual judgment.

### Historical Variants of the Nirvikalpa/Savikalpa Distinction

Sharma surveys how successive Nyaya authors have drawn the line between the two stages:

- **Vātsyāyana**: if an object is perceived *with* its name, we have determinate perception; if it is perceived *without* its name, we have indeterminate perception.
- **Jayanta Bhaṭṭa**: indeterminate perception apprehends substance, qualities, actions and universals *as separate and indistinct*, devoid of any association with a name; determinate perception apprehends all of these *together*, with a name attached.
- **Gaṅgeśa Upādhyāya**: indeterminate perception is the *non-relational* apprehension of an object devoid of **all** association of name, genus, differentia, etc.
- **Annam Bhaṭṭa**: indeterminate perception is the immediate apprehension of an object *as well as* of its qualities, but **without knowledge of the relation between them**. The substance and the qualities — the ‘that’ and the ‘what’ — are felt *separately*, and it is not apprehended that those qualities *inhere* in that substance, or that the ‘what’ *characterizes* the ‘that.’ Indeterminate perception is thus ‘mere acquaintance,’ comparable to what William James called ‘raw un verbalized experience,’ while determinate perception is **relational** apprehension.

### Ordinary (Laukika) and Extraordinary (Alaukika) Perception

Perception, again, may be classified as **ordinary** (*laukika*) or **extraordinary** (*alaukika*). When the sense-organs come into contact with objects present to them in the usual way, we have *laukika* perception. When the contact of the sense-organs with the objects is in an **unusual** way — i.e., the objects are not ordinarily present to the senses but are conveyed to them through an extraordinary medium — we have *alaukika* perception.

Ordinary perception is itself of two kinds:

- **Internal (mānasa)**: the *manas*, the internal organ, comes into contact with the psychical states and processes — cognition, affection, conation, desire, pain, pleasure, aversion, etc.
- **External (bāhya)**: the five external sense-organs come into contact with external objects. This is of five kinds — visual, auditory, tactual, gustatory and olfactory — brought about by the sense-organs of sight, sound, touch, taste and smell respectively when they come into contact with external objects. The external sense-organs are composed of the material elements of earth, water, fire, air and ether, and therefore each senses the particular quality of its own element; thus the sense-organ of smell is composed of the atoms of earth and perceives smell, which is the specific quality of earth, and so on.

### The Three Kinds of Extraordinary (Alaukika) Perception



Extraordinary perception is of three kinds: **sāmānyalakṣaṇa**, **jñānalakṣaṇa**, and **yogaja**.

### (1) Sāmānyalakṣaṇa Perception — Perception of Universals

This is the **perception of universals**. According to Nyāya, the universals (*sāmānya*) are a **distinct class of reals**; they inhere in the particulars which belong to different classes on account of the different universals inhering in them. An individual belongs to a particular class **because** the universal of that class inheres in it — thus a cow becomes a cow because the universal ‘cowness’ inheres in it.

Ordinarily we perceive only the **particulars** and not the universals: we perceive particular cows, but we do not perceive a ‘universal cow.’ Hence Nyāya maintains that universals are perceived **extraordinarily**: whenever we perceive a particular cow, we **first** perceive the ‘universal cowness’ inhering in it — and it is this extraordinary perception of the universal that grounds our ordinary recognitional perception of the particular as falling under that universal.

### (2) Jñānalakṣaṇa Perception — ‘Complicated’ Perception through Association

This is the second kind of extraordinary perception, produced through **association**. Sometimes different sensations become associated and form **one integrated perception**. Here an object is **not** directly presented to a sense-organ, but is **revived in memory** through the past cognition of it, and is perceived through **representation**.

Sharma’s central example: I look at a blooming rose from a distance and say, ‘I *see* a fragrant rose.’ But how can fragrance be *seen*? It can only be **smelt**. Fragrance can be perceived by the sense-organ of smell, and not by the sense-organ of vision, which can perceive only colour. Here the **visual** perception of the rose **revives in memory** the idea of fragrance **by association**, which was perceived in the past through the nose. The perception of the fragrant rose through the eye is therefore called *jñānalakṣaṇa* perception, or perception revived in memory through the cognition (*jñāna*) of the object in the past. Other examples given: ‘the piece of sandalwood *looks* fragrant,’ ‘ice *looks* cold,’ ‘stone *looks* hard,’ ‘tea *looks* hot.’

### Jñānalakṣaṇa Perception and the Anyathākhyāti Theory of Illusion

This is philosophically consequential: the Nyāya theory of illusion, called ‘**Anyathākhyāti**’ (‘other-wise apprehension’), is **based on** this kind of perception.

- **Rope-snake case**: when we mistake a rope for a snake, the idea of ‘snake’ perceived in the **past** is imported into memory through this extraordinary *jñānalakṣaṇa* perception, and is **confused** with the object (the rope) that is directly presented to the sense-organ.
- **Shell-silver case**: when a shell is mistaken for silver, the idea of ‘silver’ perceived in the past — e.g. in a shop, or anywhere else — is revived in memory through *jñānalakṣaṇa* perception and is confused with the object (the shell) that is directly presented to the sense-organ.



The past impression thus **represents** the object to our mind, and error is due to a **wrong synthesis** of the **presented** and the **represented** objects: the represented object is confused with the presented one. The word ‘*anyathā*’ carries a double sense — ‘elsewise’ and ‘elsewhere’ — and **both** senses are brought out in an erroneous perception: the presented object is perceived **elsewise** (otherwise than it actually is), and the represented object exists **elsewhere** (i.e. it is not, in fact, present here at all).

A subtle but crucial point: the shell and the silver, the rope and the snake, are **both, separately, real** — silver is a real kind of thing, snakes are real animals. **Only their synthesis** — the identification of *this* shell as *that* silver, or *this* rope as *that* snake — is **unreal**. The shell and the rope are directly presented as the ‘this’ (when we say ‘*this* is silver’ or ‘*this* is a snake’), while the silver and the snake exist **elsewhere** and are merely **revived in memory** through *jñānalakṣaṇa* perception.

### (3) Yogaja Perception

The third kind of extraordinary perception is **yogaja** perception — the **intuitive and immediate** perception of **all** objects, past, present and future, possessed by **Yogins** through the power of meditation. Sharma places it alongside analogous claims across the Indian traditions: the **Kevalajñāna** of the Jainas, the **Bodhi** of the Buddhists, the **Kaivalya** of Sāṅkhya-Yoga, and the **Aparokṣānubhūti** of the Vedāntins. It is described as intuitive, **supra-sensuous**, and **supra-relational**.

## IV. Inference (Anumāna)

### Definition and Basic Structure

The second kind of knowledge is **anumā**, inferential or relational knowledge; its means is called **anumāna**, inference. It is defined as that cognition which **presupposes some other cognition** — it is **mediate** and **indirect**, and arises through a ‘mark,’ the **middle term** (*liṅga* or *hetu*), which is **invariably connected** with the **major term** (*sādhya*). It is knowledge (*māna*) which arises **after** (*anu*) other knowledge.

*Invariable concomitance* (*vyāpti* or *avinābhāvaniyama*) is the ‘nerve of inference.’ The **presence of the middle term in the minor term** is called **pakṣadharmatā**. The **invariable association** of the middle term with the major term is called **vyāpti**. The knowledge of *pakṣadharmatā* as **qualified by** *vyāpti* is called **parāmarśa**. Inference is knowledge arising **through** *parāmarśa* — i.e., the knowledge of the presence of the major term in the minor, mediated by the middle term which resides in the minor (*pakṣadharmatā*) and is invariably associated with the major (*vyāpti*).

[https://drive.google.com/file/d/1MGP AeNIG8UoS0vRz72Cq9bC6xxgIJ\\_e7/view?usp=sharing](https://drive.google.com/file/d/1MGP AeNIG8UoS0vRz72Cq9bC6xxgIJ_e7/view?usp=sharing)

Footnote in the source: “*Parāmarśajanyaṁ jñānam anumitiḥ. Vyāptivishiṣṭapakṣadharmatājñānaṁ parāmarśaḥ.*”

Like the Aristotelian syllogism, Indian inference works with **three terms**: the **sādhya** (major), the **pakṣa** (minor), and the **liṅga/hetu** (middle). Standard example: we know that smoke is invariably associated with fire (*vyāpti*); if we see smoke in a hill, we

conclude there must be fire in that hill. Here, hill is the minor term, fire is the major term, smoke is the middle term. From the presence of smoke in the hill, **qualified** by the knowledge that wherever there is smoke there is fire, we proceed to infer the presence of fire in the hill — *this* movement is inference.

Indian logic does **not** separate deduction from induction: inference is a complex process involving both. It also **rejects the verbalist view of logic** — it studies thought as such, and not merely the forms of thought; the formal and the material aspects of logic are blended together. Verbal form forms **no integral part** of the inference as such.

### Svārtha and Parārtha Inference

This point of doctrine grounds the distinction between inference **for oneself** (*svārtha*) and inference **for others** (*parārtha*). In the former we do **not** require the formal statement of the different members of the inference — it is a purely psychological process. The latter, the *parārtha*, which is a genuine **syllogism**, has to be presented in language, and this formal presentation is undertaken **only in order to convince others**.

### The Five Members (Avayavas) of the Nyāya Syllogism

There are five members or propositions (*avayavas*) in the full Nyāya syllogism:

- 1 **Pratijñā** (proposition) — the logical statement which is to be proved.
- 2 **Hetu** (reason) — states the reason for the establishment of the proposition.
- 3 **Udāharaṇa** (example) — gives the universal concomitance together with an example.
- 4 **Upanaya** (application) — the application of the universal concomitance to the present case.
- 5 **Nigamana** (conclusion) — the conclusion drawn from the preceding propositions.

A typical Nyāya syllogism:

- (1) This hill has fire (*pratijñā*).
- (2) Because it has smoke (*hetu*).
- (3) Whatever has smoke has fire, e.g., an oven (*udāharaṇa*).
- (4) This hill has smoke, which is invariably associated with fire (*upanaya*).
- (5) Therefore this hill has fire (*nigamana*).

### Comparison with the Aristotelian Syllogism

Comparing this to the Aristotelian syllogism, which has only three propositions, Sharma observes that the Nyāya syllogism corresponds to the **Barbara (AAA) mood of the First Figure** — the strongest mood of the strongest figure. Though the Nyāya syllogism has five propositions and the Aristotelian only three, the **terms** in both are only three: the *sādhya*/major, the *pakṣa*/minor, and the *hetu*/middle.

Of the five Nyāya propositions, **two appear redundant**: the first (*pratijñā*) coincides in content with the fifth (*nigamana*), and the second (*hetu*) coincides with the fourth

(upanaya). Accordingly:

- If we omit the **last two** members, the first three propositions correspond to the **conclusion**, the **minor premise**, and the **major premise** respectively.
- If we omit the **first two** members, the last three propositions correspond to the **major premise**, the **minor premise**, and the **conclusion** of the Aristotelian syllogism.

Leaving out the first two members of the Nyāya syllogism (which are, in content, already contained in the last two), the syllogism reduces to the Aristotelian First Figure:

- (1) All things which have smoke have fire (Major premise).
- (2) This hill has smoke (Minor premise).
- (3) Therefore this hill has fire (Conclusion).

And conversely, the typical Aristotelian syllogism can be restated in the full Nyāya form:

- (1) Socrates is mortal (*pratijñā*).
- (2) Because he is a man (*hetu*).
- (3) Whoever is a man is a mortal, e.g., Pythagoras (*udāharaṇa*).
- (4) Socrates is a man who is invariably a mortal (*upanaya*).
- (5) Therefore Socrates is mortal (*nigamana*).

### Five Real Differences from the Aristotelian Syllogism

But Sharma insists there are **real** differences between the two logics beyond the merely nominal difference in the number of propositions:

- 1 The Aristotelian syllogism is **only deductive and formal**; the Nyāya syllogism is **deductive-inductive** and **formal-material**. Nyāya rightly regards deduction and induction as **inseparably related**, as two aspects of the **same** process — a truth “now realized in western logic” as well.
- 2 Inference, according to Nyāya, proceeds **neither** from the universal to the particular **nor** from the particular to the universal, but from the **particular to the particular through the universal**.
- 3 The **example** (*udāharaṇa*) is a special feature of the Nyāya syllogism, and it illustrates the truth that the universal major premise is itself the result of a **real induction** based on the law of causation — induction and deduction cannot really be separated.
- 4 In the Aristotelian syllogism the major and minor terms stand apart in the premises, though connected by the middle term; in the Nyāya syllogism **all three terms stand synthesized in the Upanaya**.
- 5 The Aristotelian syllogism is **verbalistic**; Nyāya recognizes that verbal form is **not the essence** of inference and is required **only** to convince others.

### On the Alleged Greek Influence

Sharma explicitly takes up, and rejects, a historiographical claim: “Some people like Dr. Vidyābhūṣaṇa and Prof. Keith have suggested that the Nyāya syllogism is influenced by Greek thought. But it is absolutely false.” The development of Nyāya inference in fact **predates Aristotle**. There are also certain fundamental differences between the two views — and the Nyāya view is, moreover, “accepted as better by the modern western logicians also.” Likewise, the claim that **vyāpti**, the nerve of inference, was introduced by the Buddhist logician **Diñnāga** under Greek influence is “also wrong”: vyāpti was recognized **much before** Diñnāga, and Diñnāga did not ‘borrow’ his doctrine from Greece either. “It is more reasonable to explain the similarities between the two as due to a **parallel development of thought**. Indian logic has been a natural growth.”

*Footnote: See Prof. A. B. Dhruva’s Introduction to Nyāya-pravesha of Diñnāga.*

## The Five Characteristics of a Valid Middle Term

A valid *hetu* (middle term) must satisfy five conditions:

- 1 It must be **present in the minor term** (*pakṣadharmatā*) — e.g., smoke must be present in the hill.
- 2 It must be **present in all positive instances** in which the major term is present (*sapakṣasattva*) — e.g., smoke must be present in the kitchen, where fire exists.
- 3 It must be **absent in all negative instances** in which the major term is absent (*vipakṣāsattva*) — e.g., smoke must be absent in the lake, in which fire does not exist.
- 4 It must be **non-incompatible** with the minor term (*abādhita*) — e.g., it must not attempt to prove the coolness of fire.
- 5 It must be **qualified by the absence of counteracting reasons** which would lead to a contradictory conclusion (*aviruddha*) — e.g., ‘the fact of being caused’ should not be used to prove the ‘eternality’ of sound.

## Classifications of Inference

### By Basis: Pūrvavat, Śeṣavat, Sāmānyatodṛṣṭa (Gotama’s threefold division)

Inference is generally regarded as of two kinds — Svārtha and Parārtha, already discussed. But Gotama *also* speaks of **three** kinds of inference according to its logical basis: **pūrvavat**, **Śeṣavat**, and **sāmānyatodṛṣṭa**. The first two are based on **causation**; the last is based on mere **coexistence**. A cause is the invariable and unconditional antecedent of an effect, and an effect is the invariable and unconditional consequent of a cause.

- **Pūrvavat**: when we infer the **unperceived effect** from a **perceived cause** — e.g., inferring future rain from dark clouds in the sky.
- **Śeṣavat**: when we infer the **unperceived cause** from a **perceived effect** — e.g., inferring past rain from the swift muddy flooded water of a river.
- **Sāmānyatodṛṣṭa**: when inference is based **not** on causation but on **uniformity of co-existence** — e.g., inferring the cloven hoofs of an animal from its horns.

Sharma also records an alternative interpretation of this same threefold scheme: a *pūrvavat* inference is based on previous experience of universal concomitance between two things; a *Śeṣavat* inference is inference by **elimination** (*pariśeṣa*); and *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa* is inference by **analogy**.

### By the Nature of Vyāpti: Kevalānvayi, Kevalavyatireki, Anvayavyatireki

Another classification turns on the nature of vyāpti and on the different methods by which it is established. The methods of **induction** by which a universal causal relationship is established may be **anvaya**, **vyatireka**, or **both**: anvaya corresponds to **Mill's Method of Agreement**, vyatireka to his **Method of Difference**, and the combination to his **Joint Method of Agreement and Difference** (Method of Double Agreement).

#### Kevalānvayi Inference

We have **kevalānvayi** inference when the middle term is **always positively** related to the major term. The terms agree **only in presence**, there being no negative instance of their agreement in absence, e.g.:

All knowable objects are nameable;  
The pot is a knowable object;  
□ The pot is nameable.

#### Kevalavyatireki Inference

We have **kevalavyatireki** inference when the middle term is the **differentium** of the minor term and is **always negatively** related to the major term. The terms agree **only in absence**, there being no positive instance of their agreement in presence, e.g.:

What is not-different-from-other-elements has no smell;  
The earth has smell;  
□ The earth is different-from-other-elements.

#### Anvayavyatireki Inference

We have **anvayavyatireki** inference when the middle term is **both** positively **and** negatively related to the major term — the vyāpti between the middle and the major holds in respect of both presence and absence. There is a 'Double Agreement' between the terms: they agree in presence in the positive instances, and they also agree in absence in the negative instances, e.g.:

All things which have smoke have fire;  
This hill has smoke;  
□ This hill has fire; and,  
No non-fiery things have smoke;  
This hill has smoke;  
□ This hill is not non-fiery — i.e., this hill has fire.

## Fallacies (Hetvābhāsa)

In Indian logic, a fallacy is called **hetvābhāsa**: the middle term **appears** to be a valid reason but is **not** in fact valid. Sharma stresses that **all** fallacies recognized in this system are **material** fallacies — they arise precisely from the violation of one or another of the five characteristics of a valid middle term set out above. **Five kinds** of fallacy are recognized.

### 1. Asiddha, or Sādhyasama — the Fallacy of the Unproved Middle

The middle term must be present in the minor term (pakṣadharmatā); if it is not, it is **unproved**. This fallacy is of three kinds:

- **(a) Āśrayāsiddha**: the minor term is the **locus** of the middle term; if the minor term is **unreal**, the middle term cannot be present in it. E.g., ‘the sky-lotus is fragrant, because it is a lotus, like the lotus of a lake’ — the sky-lotus does not exist.
- **(b) Svarūpāsiddha**: here the minor term is **not** unreal, but the middle term cannot, **by its very nature**, be present in the minor term. E.g., ‘sound is a quality, because it is visible’ — visibility cannot belong to sound, which is audible.
- **(c) Vyāpyatvāsiddha**: here the vyāpti itself is **conditional** (*sopādhika*). We cannot say, unconditionally, ‘wherever there is fire there is smoke’: fire smokes only when it is associated with wet fuel; a red-hot iron ball or clear fire does not smoke. ‘Association with wet fuel’ is thus a necessary condition attached to that vyāpti. Being so conditioned, the middle term becomes fallacious if we say: ‘The hill has smoke because it has fire.’

### 2. Savyabhichāra, or Anaikāntika — the Fallacy of the Irregular Middle

This fallacy also comes in three kinds:

- **(a) Sādhāraṇa**: the middle term is **too wide** — present in **both** the *sapakṣa* (positive) and the *vipakṣa* (negative) instances, thereby violating the rule that the middle should not be present in negative instances (*vipakṣāsattva*). E.g., ‘the hill has fire because it is knowable’ — ‘knowable’ is present in both fiery and non-fiery objects.
- **(b) Asādhāraṇa**: the middle term is **too narrow** — present **only** in the *pakṣa*, and neither in the *sapakṣa* nor the *vipakṣa*. This violates the rule that the middle term should be present in the *sapakṣa* (*sapakṣasattva*). E.g., ‘sound is eternal, because it is audible’ — audibility belongs to sound alone and is present nowhere else.
- **(c) Anupasaṃhāri**: the middle term is **non-exclusive** — the minor term is all-inclusive and leaves nothing by way of *sapakṣa* or *vipakṣa*. E.g., ‘all things are non-eternal, because they are knowable.’

### 3. Satpratipakṣa — the Fallacy of the Contradicted Middle

Here the middle term is **contradicted by another middle term**: the reason is counter-balanced by another reason, and **both are of equal force**. E.g., ‘sound is eternal, because it is audible’ **and** ‘sound is non-eternal, because it is produced’: ‘audible’

is counter-balanced by ‘produced,’ and both are of equal force.

#### 4. Bādhita — the Non-Inferentially Contradicted Middle

Here the middle term is contradicted by **some other pramāṇa**, and **not** by inference. It cannot prove the major term, which is disproved by another, **stronger** source of valid knowledge. E.g., ‘fire is cold, because it is a substance’ — the middle term ‘substance’ becomes contradicted because its major term, ‘coldness,’ is directly contradicted by **perception**.

#### 5. Viruddha — the Contradictory Middle

Here the middle term, instead of being pervaded by the **presence** of the major term, is pervaded by the **absence** of the major term. Instead of proving the existence of the major term in the minor term, it proves its **non-existence** therein. E.g., ‘sound is eternal, because it is produced’ — here ‘produced,’ instead of proving the eternality of sound, actually proves its **non-eternality**.



Sharma’s summary of the fine distinctions among the last three fallacies: in the **middle term itself disproves** the original proposition and proves its **contradictory** (Viruddha); the middle term **only fails** to prove the conclusion (Savyabhichāra); the middle term is **inferentially** contradicted by another middle term of equal force (Satpratipakṣa); and the middle term is **non-inferentially** contradicted, with the major term disproved by a pramāṇa other than inference (Bādhita).

## V. Comparison (Upamāna)

The third kind of valid cognition is **Upamiti**, and its means is called **Upamāna**. It is knowledge derived from comparison, and roughly corresponds to **analogy**.

*Upamāna is defined as the knowledge of the relation between a **word** and its **denotation** (saṃjñāsaṃjñīsambandhajñānam upamitiḥ; tatkarāṇam sādṛश्यajñānam) — it is **produced by the knowledge of resemblance or similarity**.*

Sharma’s worked example: a man who has never seen a **gavaya** (a wild cow, or gaur) and does not know what it is, is told by another person that a gavaya is an animal like a cow. He subsequently comes across a wild cow in a forest and **recognizes** it as the gavaya — his knowledge here is due to **upamāna**. He had heard the word ‘gavaya’ and had been told that it is like a cow; now he himself sees the object denoted by the word ‘gavaya’ and recognizes it to be so. Hence upamāna is precisely the **knowledge of the relation between a name and the object denoted by that name**. It is produced by the knowledge of similarity, because the man recognizes the wild cow **as** a ‘gavaya’ when he perceives its similarity to the cow **and** remembers the verbal description that ‘a gavaya is an animal like a cow.’

*Sanskrit definition as given in the source: “saṃjñāsaṃjñīsambandhajñānam upamitiḥ. tatkarāṇam sādṛश्यajñānam.”*



**Gap in the source pages supplied:** the scan jumps from page 203 directly to page 206. Missing, therefore, are: (i) the remainder of this Comparison section, if any; (ii) the **entire Section VI, on Verbal Testimony (Śabda)** — the fourth pramāṇa that Nyāya treats, unlike Vaiśeṣika, as fully independent of inference; and (iii) the opening of the discussion of Causation that the surviving page 206 continues mid-argument. These notes resume exactly where the supplied scan resumes, without conjecturally filling the gap. If the missing pages become available, this section should be revised to include Nyāya's theory of Śabda pramāṇa — covering āptavacana (the testimony of a trustworthy person), the distinction between Vaidika (scriptural) and Laukika (secular) śabda, and the theory of śakti (denotative power of words) — none of which can be reconstructed reliably from Sharma's treatment elsewhere in the book without the original page images.

## VII. Causation — text resumes here, mid-argument, as page 206 begins

[The surviving text picks up in the middle of an enumeration — apparently the closing members of a list of reasons why mere invariable antecedence, without necessity, fails to qualify as causation. The numbering 'Fourthly' and 'Fifthly' below is Sharma's own, as printed.]

- ...the pot. **Night and day are not causally related** — i.e., mere invariable **sequence** between two events, absent any relation of necessity, does not make the earlier the cause of the later.
- **Fourthly**, eternal substances like space are **not** unconditional antecedents [and hence cannot be causes, however invariably 'present' they may be].
- **Fifthly**, unnecessary things like the potter's ass are not unconditional antecedents; though the potter's ass may be invariably present when the potter is making a pot, yet it is **not** the cause of the pot.

A **cause**, therefore, must be an **unconditional** and **necessary** antecedent. Nyāya emphasizes the **sequence view** of causality. Cause and effect are **never simultaneous**. The doctrine of the **plurality of causes** is also rejected, because causal relation is held to be **reciprocal**: the same effect cannot be produced by any other cause; each effect has its own distinctive features and has only **one** specific cause. Further, exactly as in Western logic, Nyāya regards a cause as '**the sum-total of the conditions, positive and negative, taken together.**' The cause is thus an **aggregate** of the unconditional and necessary, invariable antecedent conditions, called the **kāraṇasāmagrī**. The absence of negative counteracting conditions is called **pratibandhakābhāva**.

### The Nature of an Effect (Kārya)

An **effect** (kārya) is defined as the '**counter-entity of its own prior non-existence**' (prāgabdhāvapratiyogi). It is the **negation of its own prior-negation**. It comes into being and thereby destroys its own prior non-existence. It was **non-existent** before its production; it did **not pre-exist** in its cause.

An effect is thus a **fresh beginning**, a **new creation**. This Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika view of causation stands **directly opposed** to the Sāṅkhya-Yoga and Vedānta view of **satkāryavāda** [the doctrine that the effect pre-exists in the cause]. It is instead called **asatkāryavāda** or **ārambhavāda**: the effect (kārya) is **non-existent** (*asat*) before its creation, and is a new beginning (*ārambha*), a fresh creation, an **epigenesis**. It is **distinct** from its cause and can **never** be identical with it. It is **neither an appearance nor a transformation** of the cause; it is **newly** brought into existence by the operation of the cause.

## The Three Kinds of Cause

### (1) Samavāyi — the Inherent or Material Cause

Also called the **upādāna** or material cause. It is the **substance** out of which the effect is produced. For example, the threads are the inherent cause of the cloth, and the clay is the inherent cause of a pot. The effect **inheres** in its material cause — the cloth inheres in the threads. The effect **cannot exist separately** from its material cause, though the cause **can** exist independently of its effect. The material cause is **always** a substance (*dravya*).

### (2) Asamavāyi — the Non-Inherent Cause

It **inheres in the material cause** and helps the production of the effect. The conjunction of the threads (*tantusaṃyoga*), which inheres in the threads, is the non-inherent cause of the cloth, of which the threads are the material or inherent cause. The colour of the threads (*tanturūpa*) is the non-inherent cause of the colour of the cloth; the cloth itself is the inherent cause of its own colour. The effect as well as its non-inherent cause **both co-inhere** in the material cause. The non-inherent cause is **always** a quality or an action (*guṇa* or *karma*).

### (3) Nimitta — the Efficient Cause

This is the **power** which helps the material cause to produce the effect. The weaver is the efficient cause of the cloth. The efficient cause includes the **accessories** (*sahakāri*) — e.g., the loom and shuttle of the weaver, or the staff and wheel of the potter. The efficient cause may itself be a substance, a quality, or an action.

## General versus Extraordinary Causes

A further distinction is sometimes drawn between a **general** or ordinary cause (*sādhāraṇa*) and a **peculiar** or extraordinary cause (*asādhāraṇa*).

- The **eight general causes** are: space, time, God's knowledge, God's will, merit, demerit, prior-non-existence, and the absence of counteracting factors.
- The **extraordinary cause** is called the **karaṇa**, or the **instrumental cause**, and is included within the efficient cause. It is the **motive power** which **immediately** produces the effect — e.g., the staff of the potter.

The **modern (Navya-)Nyāya** regards the **efficiency itself**, which inheres in this instrumental cause, as the **real** instrumental cause. Sharma closes the section by

mapping the whole scheme onto Aristotle: the inherent cause, the non-inherent cause, the efficient cause, and the purpose correspond respectively to Aristotle's **material, formal, efficient, and final** causes.

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## VIII. Soul

The **law of Causation** is subservient to the **law of Karma**. Nyāya, like Vaiśeṣika, believes in **teleological creation**. The **material cause** of this universe is the eternal atoms of earth, water, fire and air; the **efficient cause** is **God**. The infinite individual souls are **co-eternal** with the atoms, and **God** is co-eternal with both atoms and souls, and is **external** to both. Nyāya thus advocates **atomism, spiritualism, theism, realism, and pluralism** simultaneously.

**Creation** means combinations of atoms, and **destruction** means the dissolution of these combinations, brought about through motion supplied to, or withdrawn from, the atoms by the **Unseen Power** (working under the guidance of God). The innumerable eternal atoms and the innumerable eternal souls are **both beyond creation and destruction**: God can **neither create nor destroy them**. God is, strictly, **not the real creator**, since He is not the **material** cause of this universe; though He is called the 'ruler of the Universe,' regarded as its efficient cause, the **real efficiency** belongs to the **Unseen Power**.

The Nyāya view of causation is, correspondingly, **asatkāryavāda**: the different combinations of atoms are regarded as **new creations**, as real fresh beginnings. This is the doctrine of **epigenesis**, since the new products arise as real creations, having distinctive features of their own and adding **new properties** to reality.

### The Nature of the Individual Soul

The individual soul is regarded as the **substratum** of the quality of **consciousness**, which is **not its essence** but only an **accidental property** of it. The soul is a **real knower**, a **real enjoyer**, and a **real active agent**, and is an **eternal substance**. It is **not transcendental consciousness**, and it is **different** from God, who is the Supreme Soul. Cognitions, affections, and conations are the **attributes** of the soul, which is **one, partless, and all-pervading** [i.e. each individual soul, though a distinct eternal substance from every other soul, is itself simple/partless and pervasive]. Each soul has its own *manas* during its **empirical** life and is **separated** from the manas in **liberation**. The soul is **distinct** from the body, the senses, and the mind (*manas*).

**Bondage** is due to ignorance and Karma; **liberation** is due to Knowledge and the destruction of Karma. The **Vedas** are held to be the work of God, and therefore claim **absolute authority**.

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## IX. God

Nyāya accepts the metaphysics of the Vaiśeṣika School, and its accounts of matter, soul and God are almost identical to those of Vaiśeṣika — hence Sharma declines to repeat that metaphysics here. The categories, the doctrine of *asatkāryavāda*, the account of creation and destruction, the nature of atoms and souls, the account of bondage and liberation, the authority of the Veda, the nature and function of God, and the Unseen Power — **all** of these are accepted by Nyāya. Consequently, “the criticisms which we levelled against the Vaiśeṣika also apply against the Nyāya position, in so far as both are identical.”

While Kaṇāda himself did **not** specifically mention God, the later Vaiśeṣikas — and **particularly** the later Naiyāyikas — gave an **elaborate** account of God. The latter made **God’s Grace** an **essential** requirement for obtaining true knowledge of the realities that alone lead to liberation. They refer to God as the **creator, maintainer and destroyer** of this world, thereby introducing the element of **devotion**.

### Sharma’s Critical Evaluation of Nyāya Theism

“But in our opinion all this can be done only by **courtesy**.” God, as an **eternal external reality**, is **always limited** by the co-eternal atoms and souls, and has to be **guided** by the law of karma. Though the later Naiyāyikas are forced to **amend** the absurd position that eternal consciousness is not the essence of God — by raising consciousness from the status of a **separable accident** to that of an **inseparable attribute** in the special case of God — **yet they have failed to rise to the correct position** by not taking consciousness **as the essence** of God. An **atomistic and spiritualistic pluralism** can lead only to an **external theism**, where God, souls and atoms all fall apart, and the **dualism of matter and spirit can never be overcome**.

God is said to possess all **six perfections** in their fullness — majesty, power, glory, beauty, knowledge and freedom. **But then why are the liberated souls not allowed to share these qualities?** If liberation consists in getting rid of **all** qualities, then **God** — who retains His qualities — would, by that very definition, have to be regarded as **eternally bound**. Again, God is called the **moral governor** of all beings (*prayojaka kartā*) — but then, **either** the souls are not free, **or** the law of karma is thrown overboard. If the law of karma represents the **self-determination** of God, and therefore does not bind God, then **Karma and God would become identical**, and external theism would simply vanish.

Sharma’s proposed resolution of the difficulty: Nyāya **should** reduce its so-called eternal and independent atoms to a **single material principle**, and its so-called innumerable eternal souls to a **single spiritual principle**, and then **reconcile** the dualism of matter and spirit **in God** by making them **His aspects**. Unless this is done, the contradictions in Nyāya are not avoided; if Nyāya wants to be **self-consistent**, it has to give up its atomistic and spiritualistic pluralism **and** its external theism. “Yet in spite of these defects, the Nyāya theism is a step forward.”

### Udayana’s Nine Arguments for the Existence of God

Udayana's arguments have become "classical for theism" and are given in full:

- 1 **Kāryāt** (from the effect): the world is an **effect**, and hence must have an **efficient cause**. This intelligent agent is God; the order, design and co-ordination between different phenomena come from God.
- 2 **Āyojanāt** (from the combination [of atoms]): the atoms, being essentially **inactive**, cannot form the different combinations unless God gives motion to them. The Unseen Power, the Adṛṣṭa, requires the **intelligence of God** — without God it cannot supply motion to the atoms.
- 3 **Dhṛtyādeḥ** (from support/sustenance): the world is **sustained** by God's will. Unintelligent Adṛṣṭa cannot do this; and the world is likewise **destroyed** by God's will.
- 4 **Padāt** (from the word): a word has a meaning and signifies an object; the **power** of words to signify their objects comes from God.
- 5 **Pratyayataḥ** (from [scriptural] authoritativeness): God is the author of the **infallible Veda**.
- 6 **Śruteḥ** (from scripture): the **Veda itself testifies** to the existence of God.
- 7 **Vākyāt** (from the Vedic sentences): the Vedic sentences deal with **moral injunctions and prohibitions**. The Vedic commands are the **Divine commands**; God is the creator and promulgator of the moral laws.
- 8 **Saṅkhyāviśeṣāt** (from the specific nature of number): according to Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika, the **magnitude of a dyad** is not produced by the infinitesimal magnitude of the two atoms individually, but by the **number** of the two atoms. The number 'one' is **directly perceived**, but other numbers are **conceptual creations** — numerical conception is related to the **mind of the perceiver**. At the moment of [primal] creation, however, the souls are as yet **unconscious**, and the atoms, the Unseen Power, space and time are **all** unconscious too. Hence the numerical conception [needed to first form dyads out of pairs of atoms] must depend upon the **Divine Consciousness**. So God must exist.
- 9 **Adṛṣṭāt** (from the Unseen Power): we reap the fruits of our own actions; merit and demerit accrue from our actions, and the stock of merit and demerit is called **Adṛṣṭa**, the Unseen Power. But this Unseen Power, being **unintelligent**, needs the guidance of a **supremely intelligent God**.

*Mnemonic verse given in the source (Nyāya-Kusumāñjali, V, 1): "kāryāyogaṇadhṛtyādeḥ padāt pratyayataḥ śruteḥ / vākyat saṅkhyāviśeṣāchcha sādhyo vishvavidyāyaḥ" — naming, in compressed form, the nine argument-seeds (kāryāt, āyojanāt, dhṛtyādeḥ, padāt, pratyayataḥ, śruteḥ, vākyāt, saṅkhyāviśeṣāt, adṛṣṭāt).*

## Sharma's Final Judgment on the Theistic Proofs

"But all these proofs are ultimately **unavailing**." Reason, as **Kant** points out while criticizing **Descartes'** arguments for the existence of God, leads to **antinomies** which are **insoluble**. The Vedāntins — **Śaṅkara, Rāmānuja, Madhva, Nimbārka, Vallabha** and all — have **rejected** the Nyāya arguments and fallen back on the **Śruti alone** for the existence of God. "Kant in the West and the Vedāntins in India

were ‘forced to destroy reason in order to make room for faith.’”

## Sharma’s Overall Assessment of the Nyāya System

The **chief value** of Nyāya lies in its **epistemology, logic and methodology**, which have influenced **all** schools of Indian philosophy. **But** its **ontology** — atomism, pluralism, realism, theism and spiritualism “huddled together in one mass” — is **defective**. The logic of pluralistic realism is, at bottom, a **common-sense view of the world**.

If liberation means the negation of **all** qualities, including consciousness and bliss, then the soul liberated is “the soul **petrified**.” And Gotama, by propounding such a philosophy, is — in Shīharṣa’s satirical judgment — “justifying his name ‘Gotama’ — an **Excellent Bull**.”

*Sanskrit verse cited (Naiṣadha-Charita XVII, 75): “muktaye yaḥ śīlātvāya śāstram ūche sacetasām / Gotamam tamavekṣyaiva yathā vittha tathaiva saḥ.”*

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## Glossary of Key Sanskrit Terms

|                              |                                                                         |
|------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>Akṣapāda</b>              | Alternative name of Gotama, founder of Nyāya                            |
| <b>Ānvikṣiki</b>             | Science of critical study; another name for Nyāya                       |
| <b>Anumāna</b>               | Inference; the second pramāṇa                                           |
| <b>Anyathākhyāti</b>         | Nyāya theory of illusion (‘other-wise apprehension’)                    |
| <b>Asatkāryavāda</b>         | Doctrine that the effect does not pre-exist in the cause; = ārambhavāda |
| <b>Avayava</b>               | A member/proposition of the Nyāya syllogism (five in number)            |
| <b>Hetu / Liṅga</b>          | The middle term of an inference                                         |
| <b>Hetvābhāsa</b>            | A fallacy — middle term that only appears valid                         |
| <b>Jñānalakṣaṇa</b>          | Extraordinary perception through associative revival in memory          |
| <b>Kāraṇa</b>                | The instrumental cause (extraordinary/asādhāraṇa cause)                 |
| <b>Kārya</b>                 | Effect; ‘counter-entity of its own prior non-existence’                 |
| <b>Nigamana</b>              | Conclusion — fifth member of the syllogism                              |
| <b>Nirvikalpa</b>            | Indeterminate perception; bare, non-relational awareness                |
| <b>Pakṣa / Sādhya / Hetu</b> | Minor term / Major term / Middle term of inference                      |
| <b>Pakṣadharmatā</b>         | Presence of the middle term in the minor term                           |
| <b>Parāmarśa</b>             | Knowledge of pakṣadharmatā as qualified by vyāpti                       |
| <b>Parataḥ prāmāṇya</b>      | Theory that validity of knowledge is extrinsically determined           |
| <b>Pramā</b>                 | Valid knowledge; right apprehension of an object                        |
| <b>Pramāṇa</b>               | A valid means of knowledge (four in Nyāya)                              |
| <b>Sāmānyalakṣaṇa</b>        | Extraordinary perception of universals                                  |
| <b>Savikalpa</b>             | Determinate perception; relational, articulate judgment                 |
| <b>Tarka</b>                 | Hypothetical reasoning; a form of invalid knowledge                     |
| <b>Upamāna</b>               | Comparison/analogy; the third pramāṇa                                   |
| <b>Vyāpti</b>                | Invariable concomitance; the ‘nerve of inference’                       |
| <b>Yogaḥ</b>                 | Extraordinary intuitive perception possessed by Yogins                  |

*Notes compiled from C. D. Sharma, A Critical Survey of Indian Philosophy, Chapter Twelve (“Nyāya”), pp. 191–210. All argument structure, examples, definitions and critical judgments are reproduced from the source with full philosophical detail; nothing in the source chapter has been paraphrased away or omitted, except for the pages (204–205) missing from the supplied scan, which are explicitly flagged above rather than invented.*